Chapter-One
What Is Organizational Behavior

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Organizational Behavior

- Organizational behavior is a field of study that investigates the impact that individuals, groups, and structure have on behavior within organizations for the purpose of applying such knowledge toward improving an organization's effectiveness.
- OB is a field of study, meaning that it is a distinct area of expertise with a common body of knowledge. It focuses on three determinants of behavior in organizations: individuals, groups and the effect of structure on behavior in order to make organizations work more effectively.

Organizational Behavior

- OB is concerned specifically with employment-related situations, it examines behavior in the context of job satisfaction, absenteeism, employee turnover, productivity, human performance, and management. Although debate exists about the relative importance of each, OB includes these core topics:
- Motivation
- Leader behavior and power
- Interpersonal communication
- Group structure and processes
- Attitude development and perception
- Change processes
- Conflict and negotiation
- Work design

Henry Mintzberg's Managerial Roles

- Henry Mintzberg, a well-known management researcher, studied actual manager at work. In his first comprehensive study, Mintzberg concluded that what managers do can best be described by looking at the managerial roles they engage in at work.
- The term managerial roles refer to specific actions or behaviors expected of and exhibited by a manager.
- Mintzberg's pointed out three types of roles. These are-
- Interpersonal roles
- Informational roles
- Decisional roles

Mintzberg's Managerial Roles

Mintzberg's Managerial Roles

- **Interpersonal roles:** One managerial category that Mintzberg described was interpersonal roles. Interpersonal roles of managers revolve around the specifics of working within a team and involve the behaviors associated with human interaction. These roles are important for maintaining order and communication within the company. The three interpersonal roles that Mintzberg described are the figurehead, the leader, and the liaison.
- **Figurehead:** The figurehead role is one of ceremonial and symbolic duties. The manager in this role represents the organization to other groups, both inside and outside of the company. They may give speeches or presentations on behalf of the organization, attend events or meetings, and generally act as a public face for the company.

Mintzberg's Managerial Roles

- **Leader:** The leader role is all about motivating and guiding employees. The manager in this role sets goals for their team and provides support and direction to help them achieve these goals. They may also give performance reviews, provide feedback, and resolve conflicts.
- **Liaison:** The liaison role involves maintaining communication between different groups within the organization. The manager in this role acts as a go-between for different departments or teams. They may relay messages, coordinate activities, and resolve conflicts.

Mintzberg's Managerial Roles

- **Informational roles:** The next managerial category Mintzberg described was informational roles. As the name suggests, informational roles of managers involve gathering and sharing information. The three informational roles that Mintzberg described are the monitor, the disseminator, and the spokesperson.
- **Monitor:** The monitor role involves collecting information from internal and external sources. The manager in this role gathers data and keeps track of trends, both within the organization and in the wider industry. They may also conduct research and analysis to identify problems or opportunities.

Mintzberg's Managerial Roles

- **Disseminator:** The disseminator role is all about sharing information with others. The manager in this role distributes information to employees, other managers, and stakeholders. They may also act as a conduit for communication between different departments or teams.
- **Spokesperson:** The spokesperson role is similar to disseminator role, but with a focus on external communication. The manager in this roles represents the organization to the media, shareholders and other external groups. They may give interviews, make speeches, or write articles.

Mintzberg's Managerial Roles

- **Decisional roles:** This category describes a manager's responsibility to use the information they gain to form business and strategic decisions. The managerial roles included in this category are entrepreneur, disturbance-handler, resource-allocator and negotiator.
- **Entrepreneur**: The entrepreneur role involves responsibilities related to organizing and running business processes. These responsibilities may include solving problems and developing and implementing new ideas or strategies.
- **Disturbance-handler:** When organization or team faces unexpected challenges, managers take the role of a disturbance handler to help manage the issue. These challenges can be both external or internal.

Mintzberg's Managerial Roles

- **Resource allocator:** In the resource allocator role, managers are responsible for managing and distributing resources. Managers make the decisions on how those materials will best be used or applied throughout the organization or team. These resources will vary, from funding to equipment to staff members.
- **Negotiator:** In the negotiator role, managers participate in or direct negotiation situations. These negotiations may occur with external parties, where managers will represent the interests of their organization. Managers may also host negotiations with internal parties, such as other departments or their team members.

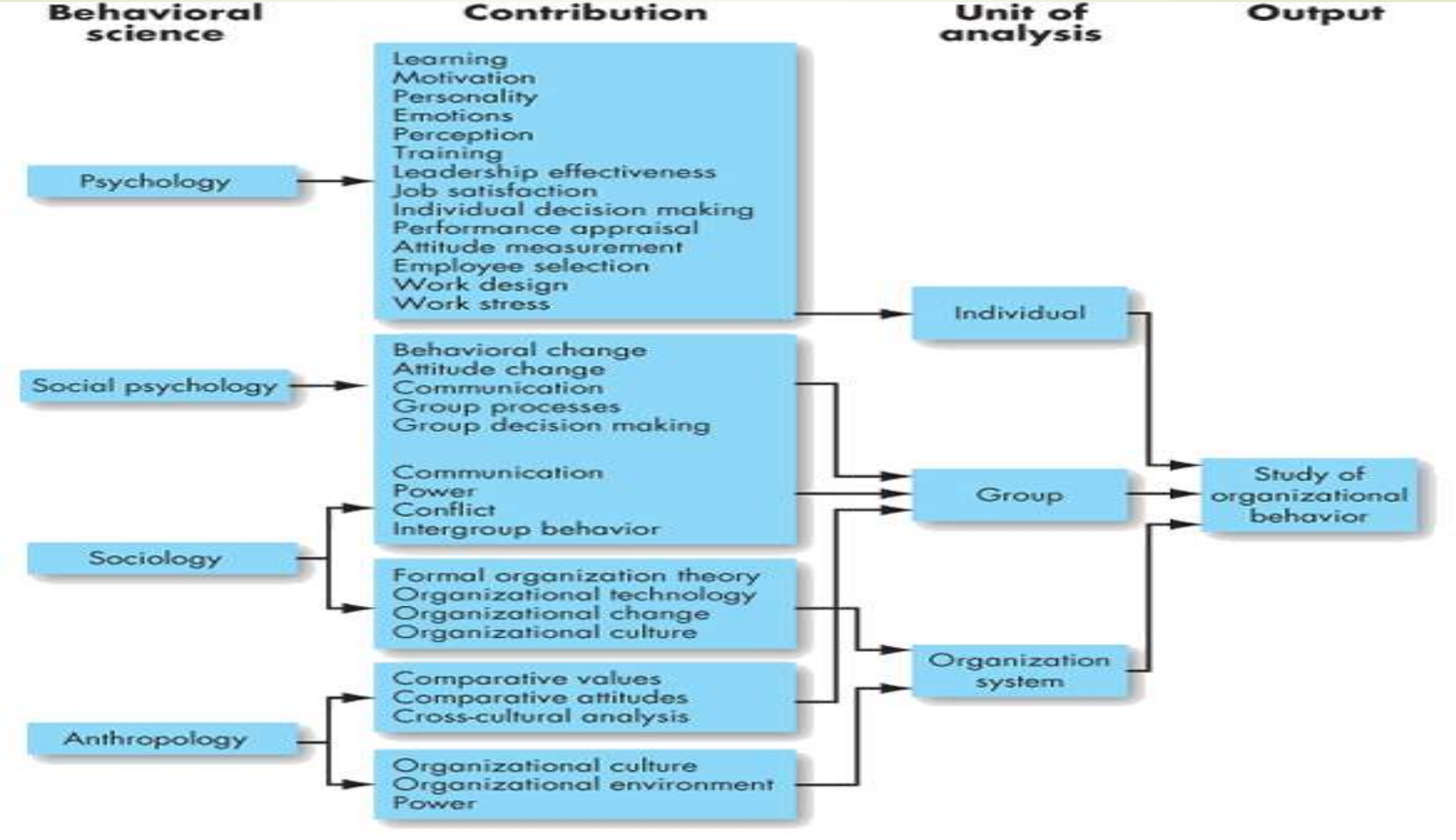
Management Skills

- Another way to consider what managers do is to look at the skills or competencies they need to achieve their goals. Researchers have identified a number of skills that differentiate effective from ineffective managers. These are-
- Technical skills
- Human skills
- Conceptual skills
- **Technical Skills:** Technical skills encompass the ability to apply specialized knowledge or expertise. When one thinks of the skills of professional, one typically focus on the technical skills that they have learned through extensive formal education. All jobs require some specialized expertise, and many people develop their technical skills on the job.

Management Skills

- **Human Skills:** The ability to understand, communicate with, motivate, and support other people, both individually and in groups, defines human skills. Many people may be technically proficient but poor listeners, unable to understand the needs of others, or weak at managing conflicts. Managers must have good human skills because they need to get things done through other people.
- **Conceptual Skills:** Managers must have the mental ability to analyze and diagnose complex situations. These tasks require conceptual skills. Decision making, for instance, requires managers to identify problems, develop alternative solutions to correct those problems, evaluate those alternative solutions and select the best one. The abilities to integrate new ideas with existing processes and to innovate on the job are also crucial conceptual skills for today's managers.

Disciplines That Contributes to OB



Disciplines That Contributes to OB

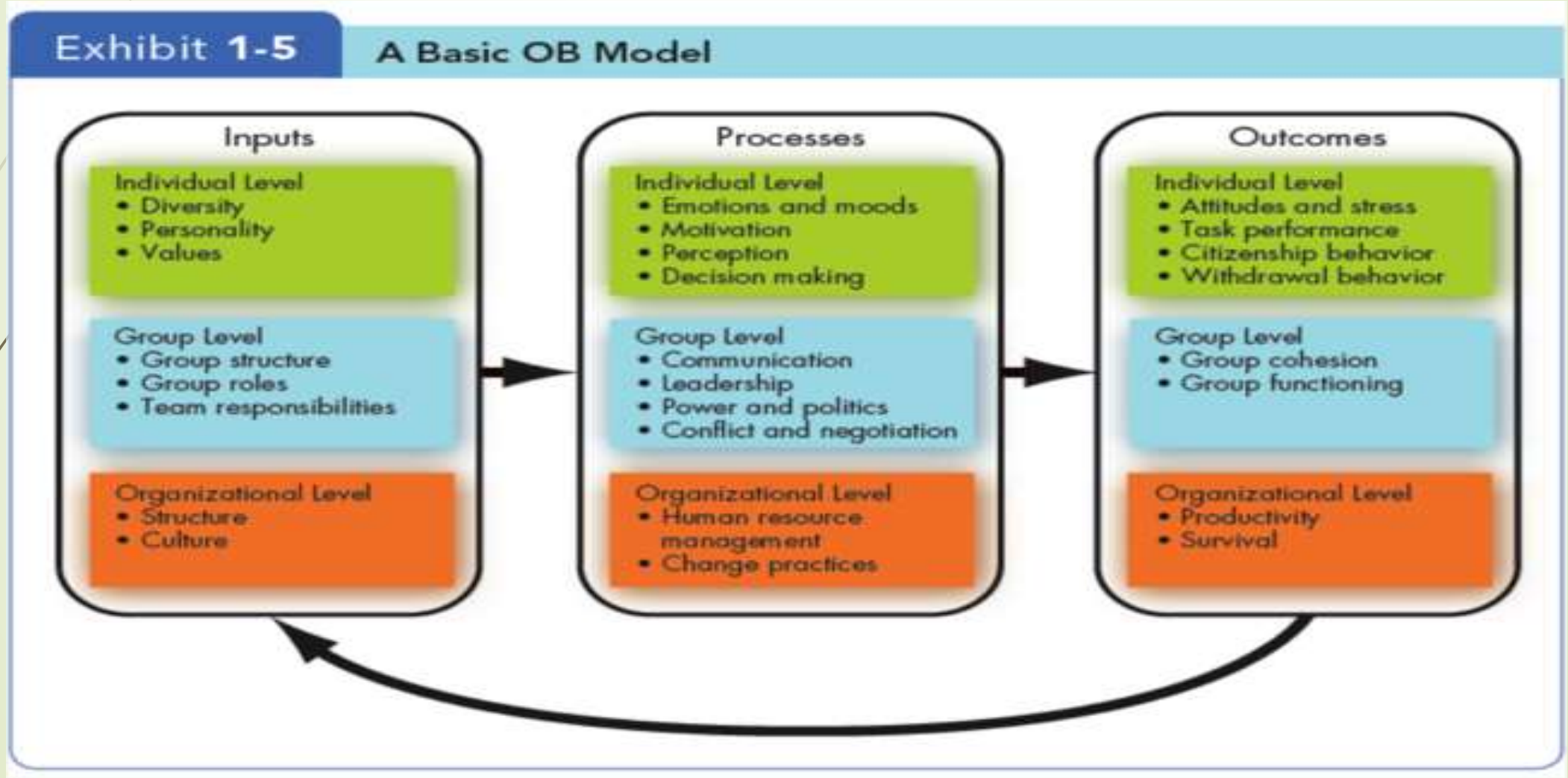
- **Psychology:** Psychology seeks to measure, explain, and sometimes change the behavior of humans and other animals. Contributors to the knowledge of OB are learning theorists; personality theorists; counseling psychologists; and most important, industrial and organizational psychologists. More recently, their contributions have expanded to include learning, perception, personality, emotions, training, leadership effectiveness, needs and motivational forces, job satisfaction, decision-making processes, performance appraisal, attitude measurement, employee selection techniques, work design, and job stress.
- **Social Psychology:** Social psychology, generally considered a branch of psychology , blends concept from both psychology and sociology to focus on people's influence on one another. One major study area is change- how to implement it and how to reduce barriers to its acceptance.

Disciplines That Contributes to OB

- **Sociology:** While psychology focuses on the individual, sociology studies people in relation to their social environment or culture. Sociologists have contributed to OB through their study of group behaviors in organizations, particularly formal and complex organization. Perhaps most important, sociologists have studied organizational culture, formal organizational theory and structure, organizational technology, communications, power, and conflicts.
- **Anthropology:** Anthropology is the study of societies to learn about human beings and their activities. Anthropologists' work on cultures and environments has helped us understand differences in fundamental values, attitudes, and behavior among people in different countries and within different organizations.

Developing an OB Model

- A model is an abstraction of reality, a simplified representation of some real world phenomenon. OB model proposes three types of variables (inputs, processes, and outcomes)at three level of analysis (individual, group, and organizational).



Developing an OB Model (Input)

- Inputs are variables like personality, group structure, and organizational culture that lead to processes. These variables set the stage for what will occur in an organization later. Many are determined in advance of the employment relationship.
- For example, individual diversity characteristics, personality, and values are shaped by a combination of an individual's generic inheritance and childhood environment.
- Group structure, roles, and team responsibilities are typically assigned immediately before or after a group is formed.
- Organizational structure and culture are usually the results of year of development and change as the organization adapts to its environment and builds up customs and norms.

Developing an OB Model (Processes)

- If inputs are like the nouns in OB, processes are like the verbs. Processes are actions that individuals, groups, and organizations engage in as a result of inputs and that lead to certain outcomes.
- At the individual level, processes include emotions and moods, motivation, perception, and decision making.
- At the group level, they include communication, leadership, power and politics, and conflict and negotiation.
- At the organizational level, processes include human resources management and change practices.

Developing an OB Model (Outcomes)

- Outcomes are the key variables that one want to explain or predict and that are affected by other variables. Scholars have emphasized individual-level outcomes, such as attitudes and stress, task performance, citizenship behavior, and withdrawal behavior.
- At the group level, cohesion and functioning are the dependent variables.
- At the organizational level, we look at overall productivity and survival.

Developing an OB Model (Outcomes)

- **Attitudes and Stress:** Employee attitudes are the evaluations that employees make, ranging from positive to negative, about objects, people, or events. Stress is a psychological process that occurs in response to environmental pressures.
- **Task Performance:** The combination of effectiveness and efficiency at doing core job tasks is a reflection of one's level task performance. If we think about the job of a factory worker, task performance could be measured by the number and quality of products produced in an hour.
- **Organizational Citizenship Behavior:** The discretionary behavior that is not part of an employee's formal job requirements, and that contributes to the psychological and social environment of the workplace, is called organizational citizenship behavior or simply citizenship behavior.

Developing an OB Model (Outcomes)

- **Withdrawal Behavior:** Withdrawal behavior is the set of actions that employees take to separate themselves from the organization. There are many forms of withdrawal, ranging from showing up late or failing to attend meetings to absenteeism and turnover.
- **Group Cohesion:** Group cohesion is the extent to which members of a group support and validate one another at work.
- **Group Functioning:** Group functioning refers to the quantity and quality of a group's work output.

Developing an OB Model (Outcomes)

- **Productivity:** The highest level of analysis in OB is the organization as a whole. An organization is productive if it achieves its goals by transforming inputs into outputs at the lowest cost. Thus, productivity requires both effectiveness and efficiency.
- **Survival:** The final outcome we will consider is organizational survival, which is simply evidence that the organization is able to exist and grow over the long term. The survival of an organization depends not just on how productive the organization is but also on how well it fits with environment.

END OF CHAPTER

HAVE A GOOD DAY……

Chapter – Two
Diversity in Organization

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Diversity

- Diversity is the range of human differences, including but not limited to race, ethnicity, gender, gender identity, age, social class, physical ability or attributes, religious or ethical values system, national origin, and political beliefs.
- Diversity means having a range of people with various racial, ethnic, socioeconomic, and cultural backgrounds and various lifestyles, experience, and interests. Having a variety of individuals and points of view represented in the department. Diversity is a group of people who are different in the same place.

Levels of Diversity

- The United Nations recognizes over thirty characteristics that represent diversity, but in truth, there are many more than that. Some are visible and some are not. Still, others are immutable parts of who we are, while some change many times over the course of our lives.
- There are two levels of diversity. These are
  - Surface-level diversity
  - Deep-level diversity

Levels of Diversity

Surface-level Diversity

- Surface-level diversity refers to a sort of diversity in which the features are observable and palpable. Age, color, sex, gender balance, visible disability, and physical size are just a few examples. Surface-level diversity in office activities refers to the disparities and stereotypes that can be seen merely by glancing at them or talking to them once or twice.
- Surface-level activities, whether well-intentioned or not, have the impact of making individuals feel "outcasted" and weakening their sense of community, which is a sure way to push them out of the company. These behaviors can breed skepticism in the workplace, making developing a truly diverse and inclusive atmosphere more challenging.

Levels of Diversity

Deep-level Diversity

- Non-observing qualities, or not apparent features, are included in deep-level diversity. Opinions, beliefs, and religious affiliations are among them. They're related to hidden diversity in that they're difficult to spot.
- Deep-level diversity increases engagement and productivity, according to research. When employees feel appreciated, respected, and involved, they are better, stronger, and more productive. Top management can benefit from fabulous ideas, broader views, and better solutions.

Discrimination in the Workplace

- Although diversity presents many opportunities for organizations, diversity management includes working to eliminate unfair discrimination.
- To review, unfair discrimination assumes that everyone in a group is the same rather than looking at the characteristics of individuals within the group. This discrimination is often very harmful for employees.
- The following slides provide definitions and examples of some form of discrimination in organizations.

Forms of Discrimination

Types of Discrimination	Definition	Examples from Organizations
Discriminatory Policies or Practices	Actions taken by representatives of the organization that deny equal opportunity to perform or unequal rewards for performance.	Older workers may be targeted for layoffs because they are highly paid and have lucrative benefits.
Intimidation	Over threats or bullying directed at members of specific groups of employees.	African-American employees at some companies have found nooses hanging over their work stations.
Mockery and Insults	Jokes or negative stereotypes; sometimes the result of jokes taken too far.	Arab-Americans have been asked at work whether they were carrying bombs or were members of terrorists organizations.

Forms of Discrimination

Types of Discrimination	Definition	Examples from Organizations
Exclusion	Exclusion of certain people from job opportunities, social events, discussions, or informal mentoring ; can occur unintentionally.	Many women in finance claim they are assigned to marginal job roles or are given light workloads that don't lead to promotion.
Incivility	Disrespectful treatment, including behaving in an aggressive manner, interrupting the person, or ignoring his or her opinions.	Female lawyers note that male attorneys frequently cut them off or do not adequately address their comments.

Ability

- Ability is an individual's current capacity to perform the various tasks in a job. Overall abilities are essentially made up of two sets of factors. These are-
- Intellectual Abilities
- Physical Abilities

- **Intellectual Abilities:** Intellectual abilities are abilities needed to perform mental activities such as thinking, reasoning, and problem solving. Most societies place a high value on intelligence , and for good reason. However, assessing and measuring intellectual ability are not always simple. IQ tests are designed to ascertain a person's general intellectual abilities, but the origins, influence factors, and testing of intelligence quotients are controversial.
- The seven most frequently cited dimensions making up intellectual abilities are discussed in the following slides.

Dimensions of Intellectual Ability

Dimension	Description	Job Example
Number Aptitude	Ability to do speedy and accurate arithmetic.	Accountant: Computing the sales tax on a set of items.
Verbal Comprehension	Ability to understand what is read or heard and the relationship of words to each other.	Plant manager: Following corporate policies on hiring.
Perceptual Speed	Ability to identify visual similarities and differences quickly and accurately.	Fire investigation: Identifying clues to support a charge of arson.
Inductive Reasoning	Ability to identify a logical sequence in a problem and then solve the problem.	Market researcher: Forecasting demand for a product in the next time period.

Dimensions of Intellectual Ability

Dimension	Description	Job Example
Deductive Reasoning	Ability to use logic and assess the implications of an argument.	Supervisor: Choosing between two different suggestions offered by employees.
Spatial Visualization	Ability to imagine how an object would look if its position in space were changed.	Interior decorator: Redecorating an office.
Memory	Ability to retain and recall past experiences.	Salesperson: Remembering the names of customers.

Physical Abilities

- The capacity to do tasks that demand stamina, dexterity, strength, and similar characteristics.
- Although the changing nature of work suggests intellectual abilities are increasingly important for many jobs, physical abilities have been and will remain valuable.
- Research on hundreds of jobs has identified nine basic abilities needed in the performance of physical tasks. These are described in the following slide-

Nine Basic Physical Abilities

Particulars	Explanation
Dynamic Strength	Ability to exert muscular force repeatedly or continuously over time.
Trunk Strength	Ability to exert muscular strength using the trunk muscles.
Static Strength	Ability to exert force against external objects.
Explosive Strength	Ability to expend a maximum of energy in one or a series of explosive acts.
Extent Flexibility	Ability to move the trunk and back muscles as far as possible.
Dynamic Flexibility	Ability to make rapid, repeated flexing movements.
Body Coordination	Ability to coordinate the simultaneous actions of different parts of the body.
Balance	Ability to maintain equilibrium despite forces pulling off balance.
Stamina	Ability to continue maximum effort requiring prolonged effort overtime.

END OF CHAPTER

HAVE A GOOD DAY……

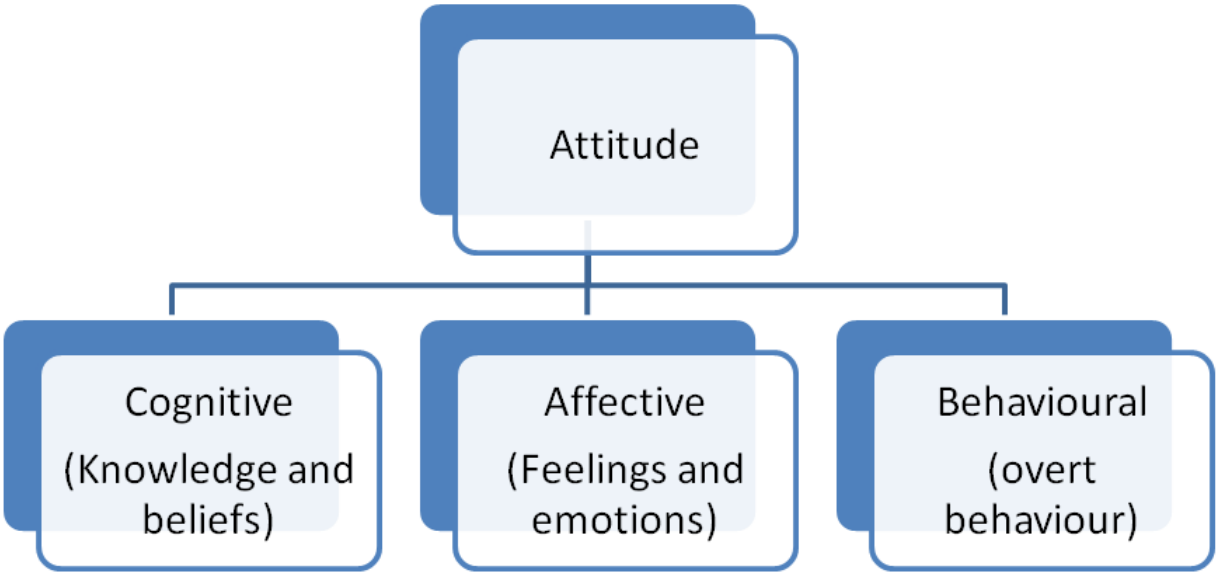
Organizational Behavior

Chapter: 03. Attitudes and Job Satisfaction

Attitudes

Evaluative statements or judgments concerning objects, people, or events. An attitude is a mental and neural state of readiness, organized through experience, exerting a directive or dynamic influence upon the individual's response to all objects and situations with which it is related. An attitude is a positive; negative or mixed evaluation of an object that is expressed at some level of intensity. It is an expression of a favorable or unfavorable evaluation of a person, place, thing or event. Attitudes involve a complex organization of evaluative beliefs, feelings, and tendencies toward certain actions.

Components of Attitude



1. Cognitive Component

The cognitive component of attitudes refers to the beliefs, thoughts, and attributes that we would associate with an object. It refers to that part of attitude which is related in general knowledge of a person.

- It is the opinion or belief segment of an attitude.
- It is the thoughts about an attitude.
- For example: People who are scared of spider, they justify their actions against the spider, believing it to be dangerous in some way.

2. Affective Component

This involves a person's feelings / emotions about the attitude object. It is related to the statement which affects another person. It deals with feelings or emotions that are brought to the surface about something, such as fear or hate.

- It is the emotional or feeling segment of an attitude.
- For example: A person say I don't like spider because it is dangerous.

3. Behavioral Component

An intention to behave in a certain way toward someone or something. Behavior component of an attitude consists of a person's tendencies to behave 'in a particular way toward an object. It refers to that part of attitude which reflects the intention of a person in the short-run or long run.

- It reflects the intention to behave in certain ways.
- It is the predispositions to act towards an attitude.
- For example: If the person scared of spiders sees one, they will react and scream.

Moderating Variables

The most powerful moderators of the attitude-behavior relationship are:

- Importance of the attitude
- Correspondence to behavior
- Accessibility
- Existence of social pressures
- Personal and direct experience of the attitude

Major Job Attitudes

1. Job Satisfaction: The term job satisfaction describes a positive feeling about a job, resulting from an evaluation of its characteristics. A person with a high level of job satisfaction holds positive feeling about his or her job, while a dissatisfied person holds negative feelings. When people speak of employee attitudes, they usually mean job satisfaction.

2. Job Involvement: Related to job satisfaction is job involvement. Job involvement measures the degree to which people identify psychologically with their job and consider their perceived performance level important to self-worth.

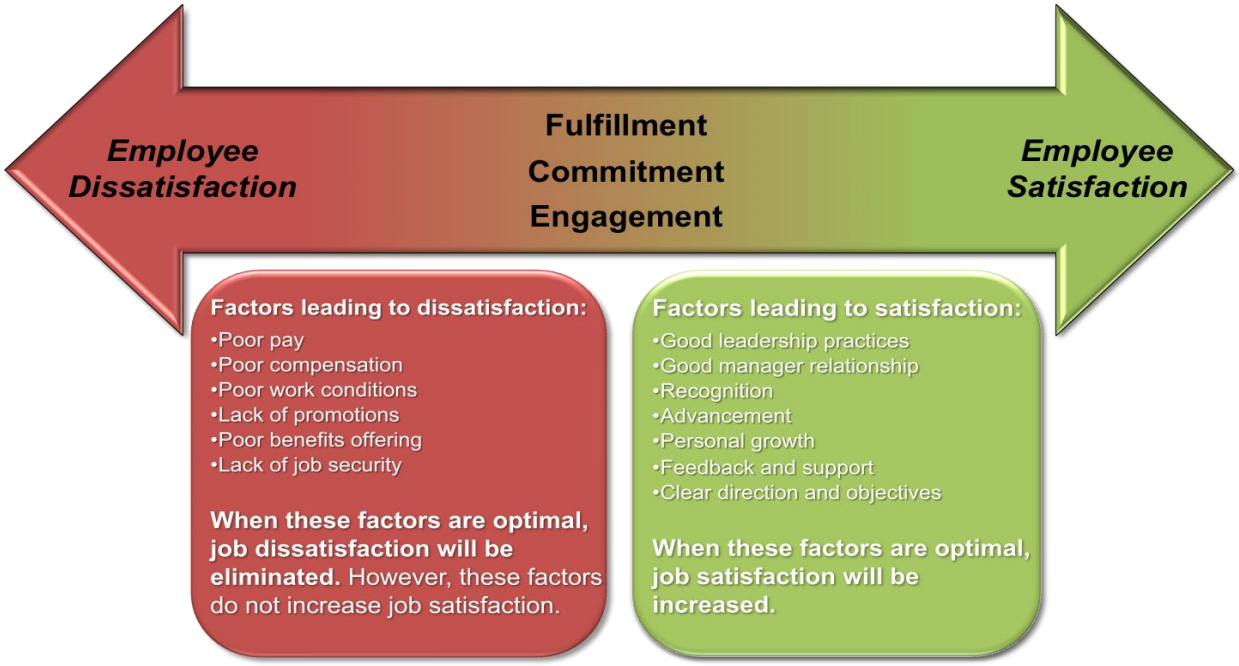
3. Organizational Commitment: A state in which an employee identifies with a particular organization and its goals and wishes to maintain membership in the organization. So, high job involvement means identifying with your specific job, while high organizational commitment means identifying with your employing organization.

4. Psychological Empowerment: Another closely related concept is psychological empowerment, which is employees' beliefs in the degree to which they influence their work environment, their competence, the meaningfulness of their job, and the perceived autonomy in their work.

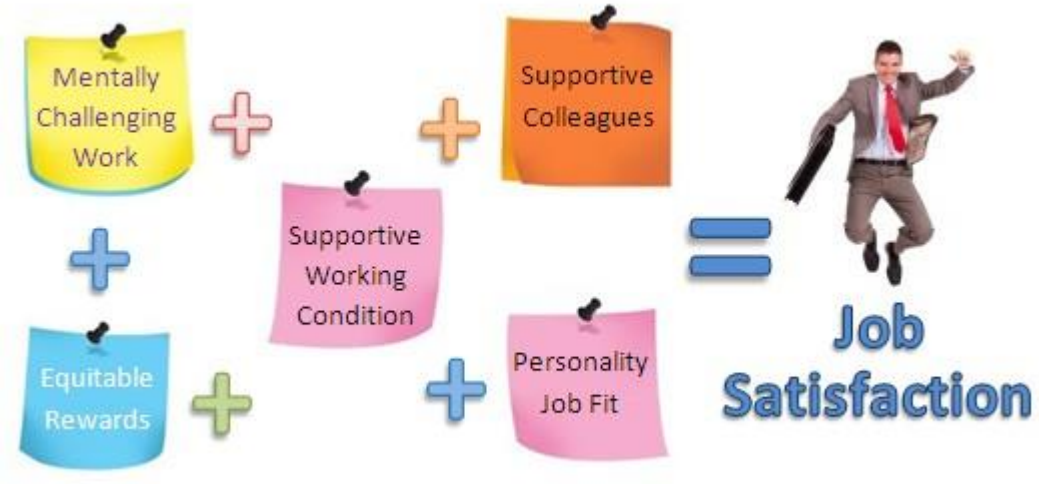
5. Employee Engagement: An individual's involvement with, satisfaction with, and enthusiasm for the work he or she does. Engaged employees are passionate about their work and company. Highly engaged employees have a passion for their work and feel a deep connection to their company; disengaged employees have essentially "checked out" – putting time but not energy or attention into their work.

6. Perceived Organizational Support: Degree to which employees believe the organization values their contribution and cares about their well-being. Higher when rewards are fair, employees are involved in decision-making, and supervisors are seen as supportive. High perceived organizational support is related to higher organizational citizenship behaviors and performance.

Job Satisfaction Model



Causes of Job Satisfaction



1. Company Policies: Policies that are transparent, fair and applied equally to all employees will decrease dissatisfaction. Therefore, fairness and clarity are crucial in improving employee attitude. For example, if a company has a policy for lunch breaks having the same length and time for all, it will be seen as a norm and will help cut down on wasted time and low productivity.

2. Salary/Benefits: Making sure employee salaries and benefits are comparable to other organization salaries and benefits will help raise satisfaction. If a company wishes to produce a competitive product they must also offer competitive wages. Furthermore, this can help reduce turnover, as employees will invariably be more satisfied when paid competitive wages as opposed to being underpaid.

3. Interpersonal/Social Relations: Encouraging employees to develop a social aspect to their job may increase satisfaction as well as develop a sense of teamwork. Co-worker relationships will benefit the organization as a whole since teamwork is a very important aspect of organization productivity and success. Moreover, when people are allowed to develop work relationships they care more about pulling their own weight and not letting co-workers down. Employee involvement groups are a great way to help employees interact with individuals outside their department or organization.

4. Working Conditions: Upgrading facilities and equipment and ensuring employees have adequate personal workspace can decrease dissatisfaction. A cramped employee is a frustrated employee plus faulty equipment leads to frustration in trying to get work done.

5. Achievement: Ensuring employees are appropriately placed to utilize their talents may enhance satisfaction. When employees are given proper role and feel a sense of achievement and challenge, their talents will be in line with the goals best suited for them.

6. Recognition: Ensuring a job well done is duly acknowledged increases the likelihood of employee satisfaction. Positive and constructive feedback boosts an employee's morale and helps them work at the desired level and towards the desired direction.

7. Autonomy: Giving employees the freedom and sense of ownership of their work may help raise job satisfaction as the individuals realize they are responsible for the outcome of their work.

8. Advancement: Allowing employees showing high performance and loyalty, the room to advance will help ensure satisfaction. A new / higher position and sense of responsibility can often increase job satisfaction in an employee.

9. Job Security: Especially in times of economic uncertainty, job security is a very crucial factor in determining an employee's job satisfaction. Giving an employee the assurance that their job is secure will most likely increase job satisfaction.

10. Work-life Balance Practices: In times where the average household is changing, it is becoming increasingly important for an employer to recognize the delicate balancing act that its employees perform between their personal life and work life. Policies that cater to common personal and family needs can be essential to maintaining job satisfaction.

Outcomes of Job Satisfaction

1. Job Performance: Satisfied workers are more productive and more productive workers are more satisfied. If people receive rewards which have both intrinsic and extrinsic value and they feel that these rewards are equitable, they will be satisfied and this will lead to greater job performance.

2. Organizational Citizenship Behaviors: Satisfaction influence organizational citizenship behaviors through perceptions of fairness.

3. Customer Satisfaction: Satisfied frontline employees increase customer satisfaction and also enhance loyalty among the customers.

4. Absenteeism: Satisfied employees are moderately less likely to miss work. It has been conclusively proved that there is an inverse relationship between job satisfaction and absenteeism. When satisfaction is high, absenteeism is low and when satisfaction is low, absenteeism is high. Less satisfied employees are more likely to be absent from work due to avoidable reasons.

5. Turnover: Satisfied employees are less likely to quit. Many moderating variables in this relationship like: economic environment and tenure, organizational actions taken to retain high performance and tend to weed out lower performers. High employee turnover is a matter of concern for the management as it disrupts the normal operations and continuous replacement of employees who leave the organization is costly and technically undesirable.

CHAPTER-FOUR
ORGANIZATIONAL CHANGE AND STRESS MANAGEMENT

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Organizational Change

- Organizational change refers to the actions in which a company or business alters a major component of its organization, such as its culture, the underlying technologies or infrastructure it uses to operate, or its internal processes.
- Organizational change management is the process of guiding organizational change to a successful resolution, and it typically includes three major phases: preparation, implementation, and follow-through.
- No company today is in a particularly stable environment. Even those with a dominant market share must change, sometimes radically.

Forces for Change

"Change or die!" is the rallying cry among today's managers worldwide. Six specific forces that stimulate change are given below-

- Changing nature of the workforce
- Technology
- Economic shocks
- Competition
- Social trends
- World politics

Forces for Change

- **Changing Nature of the Workforce:** Almost every organization must adjust to a multicultural environment, demographic changes, immigration, and outsourcing.
- **Technology:** Technology is continually changing jobs and organizations. It is not difficult to imagine the idea of an office becoming an antiquated concept in the near future.
- **Economic Shocks:** Economic shocks also have a significant impact on organizations. During the great recession of 2007 to 2009, millions of jobs were lost worldwide; home values dropped dramatically; and many large well-known corporations disappeared or were acquired. Recovery has occurred in many countries, and with it has come new job prospects and investments.

Forces for Change

- **Competition:** Competition is changing. Competitors are as likely to be across the ocean as across town. Successful organizations are fast on their feet, capable of developing new products rapidly and getting them to market quickly. In other words, they are flexible and require an equally flexible and responsive workforce.
- **Social Trends:** Social trends don't remain static either. Organization must therefore adjust product and marketing strategies continually to be sensitive to changing social trends. Consumers, employees, and organizational leaders are also increasingly sensitive to environmental concerns.

Forces for Change

- **World Politics:** Not even globalization's strongest proponents could have imagined the change in world politics in recent years. We have seen a major set of financial crises that have rocked global markets, a dramatic rise in the power and influence of China, populism and nationalist movements gaining headway in Europe and the United States and intense shakeups in governments across the Arab world.

Overcoming Resistance to Change

- Eight tactics can help change agents deal with resistance to change. These are -
  - Communication
  - Participation
  - Building Support and Commitment
  - Develop Positive Relationship
  - Implementing Changes Fairly
  - Manipulation and Cooptation
  - Selecting People Who Accept Change
  - Coercion

Overcoming Resistance to Change

- **Communication:** Communication is more important than ever in times of change. One study of German companies revealed changes are most effective when a company communicates a rationale that balances the interest of various stakeholders. Other research on a changing organization in the Philippines found that formal information sessions decreased employees anxiety about the change.
- **Participation:** It's difficult to resist a change decision in which we have participated. Assuming participations have the expertise to make a meaningful contribution, their involvement can reduce resistance, obtain commitment, and increase the quality of the change decision.

Overcoming Resistance to Change

- **Building Support and Commitment**: When managers or employees have low emotional commitment to change, they resist it and favor the status quo. Employees are also more accepting of changes when they are committed to the organization as a whole. Motivating employees and emphasizing their commitment to the organization overall can help them commit emotionally to the change rather than embrace the status quo.
- **Develop Positive Relationship:** People are more willing to accept changes if they trust the managers implementing them and see them as legitimate. Those who had a more positive relationship with their supervisor, and who felt that the work environment supported development, were much more positive about the change process.

Overcoming Resistance to Change

- **Implementing Changes Fairly:** One way organizations can minimize negative impact is to make sure change is implemented fairly. Procedural fairness is especially important when employees perceive an outcome as negative, so it's crucial that employees see the reason for the change, are kept informed about its progress, and perceive its implementation as consistent and fair.
- **Manipulation and Cooptation:** Manipulation refers to convert influence attempts. Twisting facts to make them more attractive, withholding information, and creating false rumors to get employees to accept change are all examples of manipulation. Cooptation, on the other hand, combines manipulation and participation. It seeks to buy off the leaders of a resistance group by giving them a key role, seeking their advice not to find a better solution but to get their endorsement.

Overcoming Resistance to Change

- **Selecting People Who Accept Change**: Research suggests the ability to accept and adapt easily to change is related to personality – some people are simply more receptive to change. Individual who are emotionally stable, have high core self-evaluation, are willing to take risks, and are flexible in their behavior are prime candidates.
- **Coercion:** Last on the list of tactics is coercion, the application of direct threats or force on the resisters. If management is determined to close a manufacturing plant whose employees don't acquiesce to a pay cut, the company is using coercion. Other examples threatening employees with transfer, blocked promotion, negative performance evaluation, and poor letters of recommendation.

Approaches to Managing Organizational Change

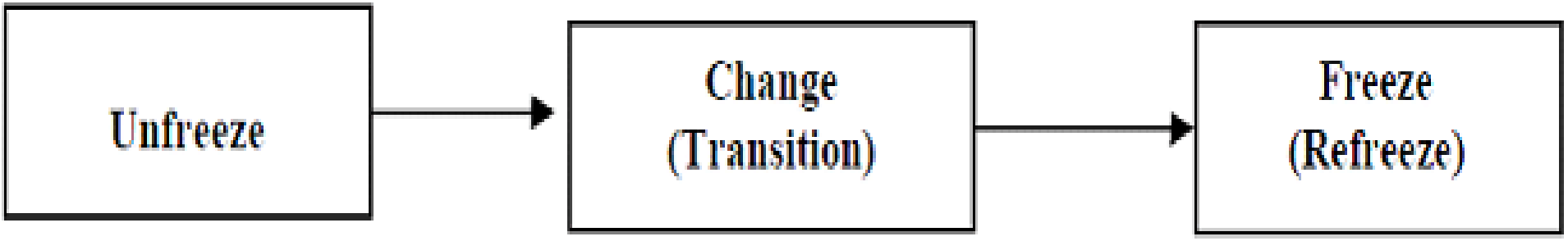
We now turn to several approaches to managing change. These are -

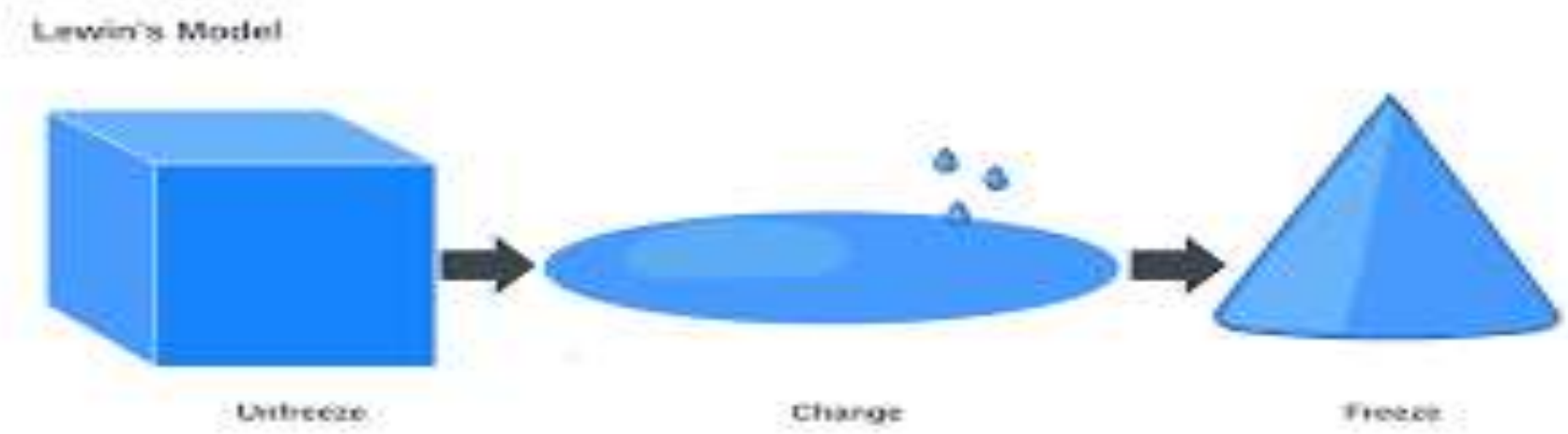
- Kurt Lewin’s Three Steep Model of The Change Process
- John Kotter Eight-Step Plan for Implementing Change

Kurt Lewin's Three Steep Model of Change Process

- Kurt Lewin's Three Stages model or the Planned Approach to Organizational is one of the cornerstone models which is relevant in the present scenario even.
- Lewin, a social scientist and a physicist, during early 1950s propounded a simple framework for understanding the process of organizational change known as the Three-Stage Theory which he referred as Unfreeze, Change (Transition) and Freeze (Refreeze).
- According to Lewin, Change for any individual or an organization is a complicated journey which may not be very simple and mostly involves several stages of transitions or misunderstandings before attaining the stage of equilibrium or stability.
- For explaining the process of organizational change, he used the analogy of how an ice block changes its shape to transform into a cone of ice through the process of unfreezing.

Kurt Lewin's Three Steep Model of Change Process





Kurt Lewin's Three Steep Model of Change Process

- **Stage 1 - Unfreezing:** This is the first stage of transition and one of the most critical stages in the entire process of change management. It involves improving the readiness as well as the willingness of people to change by fostering a realization for moving from the existing comfort zone to a transformed situation.
- It involves making people aware of the need for change and improving their motivation for accepting the new ways of working for better results. During this stage, effective communication plays a vital role in getting the desired support and involvement of the people in the change process.

Kurt Lewin's Three Steep Model of Change Process

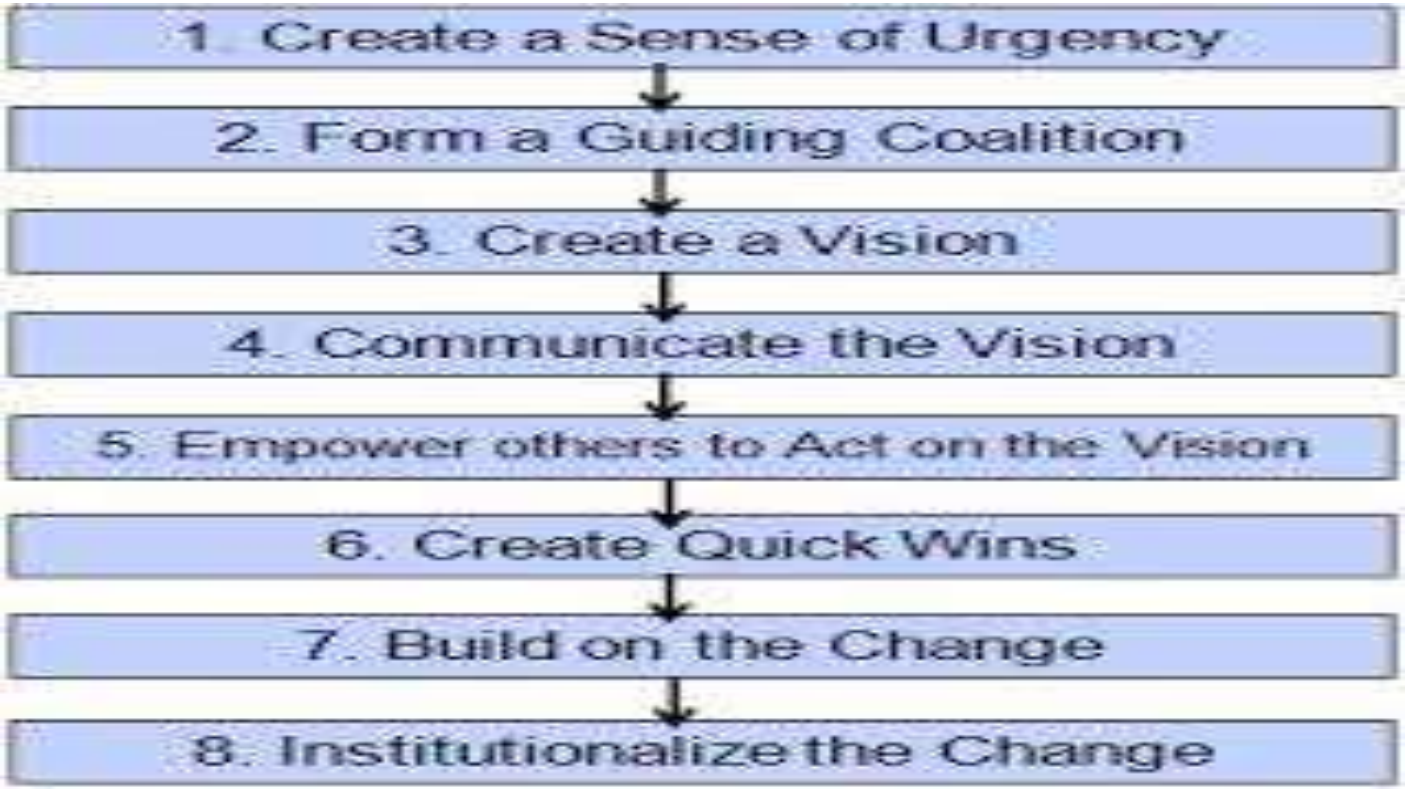
- **Stage 2 - Change:** This stage can also be regarded as the stage of Transition or the stage of actual implementation of change. It involves the acceptance of the new ways of doing things. This is the stage in which the people are unfrozen, and the actual change is implemented.
- During this stage, careful planning, effective communication and encouraging the involvement of individuals for endorsing the change is necessary. It is believed that this stage of transition is not that easy due to the uncertainties or people are fearful of the consequences of adopting a change process.

Kurt Lewin's Three Steep Model of Change Process

- **Stage 3 - Freeze (Refreezing):** During this stage, the people move from the stage of transition (change) to a much more stable state which we can regard as the state of equilibrium.
- The stage of Refreezing is the ultimate stage in which people accept or internalize the new ways of working or change, accept it as a part of their life and establish new relationships.
- For strengthening and reinforcing the new behavior or changes in the way of working, the employees should be rewarded, recognized and provided positive reinforcements, supporting policies or structures can help in reinforcing the transformed ways of working.

John Kotter Eight-Step Plan for Implementing Change

- John Kotter (1996), a Harvard Business School Professor and a renowned change expert, in his book "Leading Change", introduced 8 Step Model of Change which he developed on the basis of research on 100 organizations which were going through a process of change.



John Kotter Eight-Step Plan for Implementing Change

- **Step-1 Create a Sense of Urgency:** For change to happen, it helps if the whole company really wants it. Develop a sense of urgency around the need for change. This may help you spark the initial motivation to get things moving.
- **Step-2 Form a Guiding Coalition:** Convince people that change is necessary. This often takes strong leadership and visible support from key people within your organization. Managing change isn't enough – you have to lead it.
- **Step-3 Create a Vision for Change:** When you first start thinking about change, there will probably be many great ideas and solutions floating around. Link these concepts to an overall vision that people can grasp easily and remember.

John Kotter Eight-Step Plan for Implementing Change

- **Step-4 Communicate the Vision:** What you do with your vision after you create it will determine your success. Your message will probably have strong competition from other day-to-day communications within the company, so you need to communicate it frequently and powerfully, and embed it within everything that you do.
- **Step-5 Empower Others to Act on the Vision**: If you follow these steps and reach this point in the change process, you've been talking about your vision and building buy-in from all levels of the organization. Hopefully, your staff wants to get busy and achieve the benefits that you've been promoting.

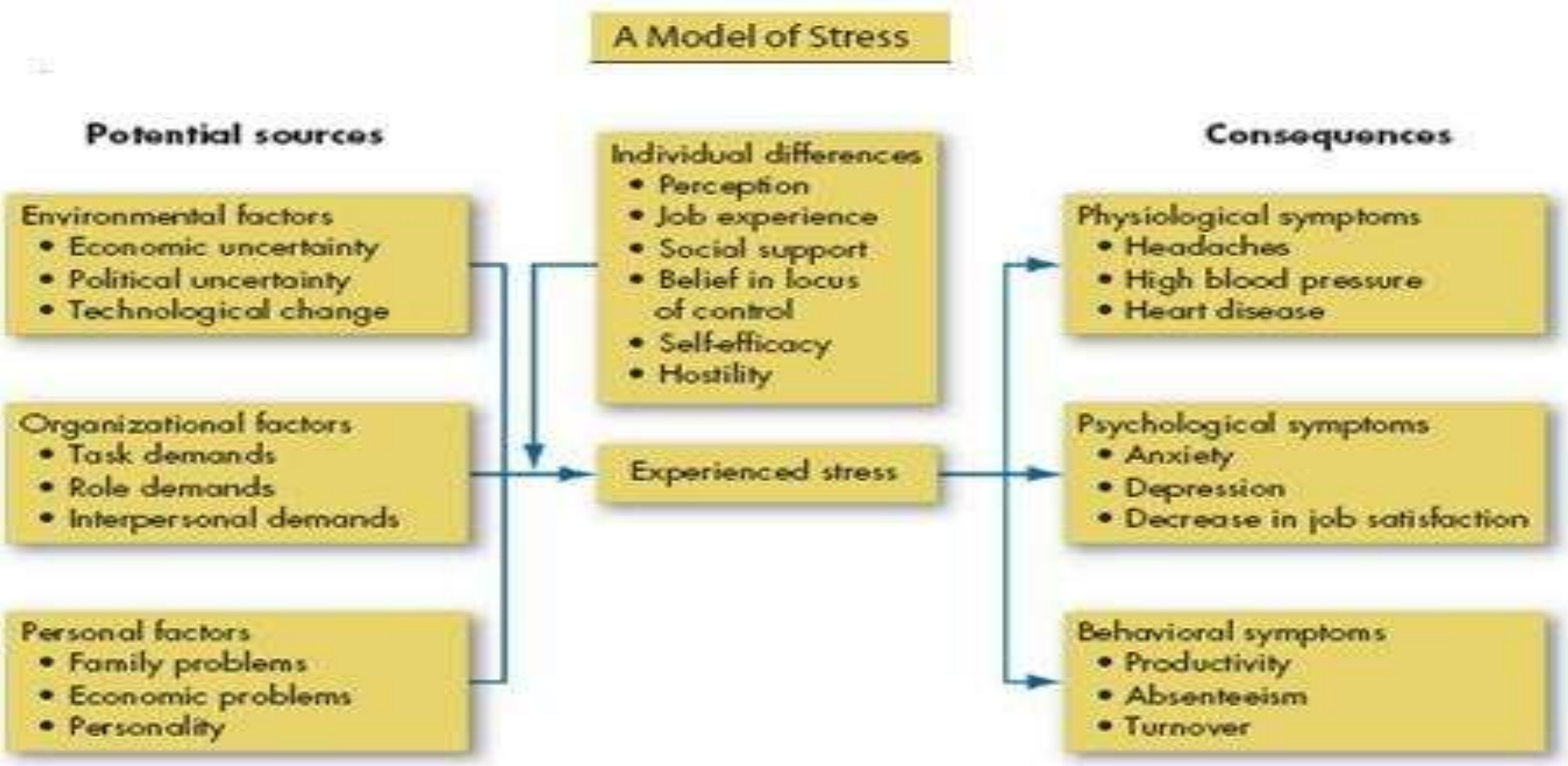
John Kotter Eight-Step Plan for Implementing Change

- **Step-6 Create Short-Term Wins:** Nothing motivates more than success. Give your company a taste of victory early in the change process. Within a short time frame (this could be a month or a year, depending on the type of change), you'll want to have some "quick wins" that your staff can see. Without this, critics and negative thinkers might hurt your progress.
- **Step-7 Build on the Change:** Kotter argues that many change projects fail because victory is declared too early. Real change runs deep. Quick wins are only the beginning of what needs to be done to achieve long-term change.
- **Step-8 Institutionalize the Change:** Finally, to make any change stick, it should become part of the core of your organization. Your corporate culture often determines what gets done, so the values behind your vision must show in day-to-day work.

Stress

- Stress is an unpleasant psychological process that occurs in response to environmental pressures. Stress is a dynamic condition in which an individual is confronted with an opportunity, demand, or resource related to what the individual desires and for which the outcome is perceived to be both uncertain and important.
- Although stress is typically discussed in a negative context, it also has a positive purpose.

A Model of Stress



Potential Sources of Stress

- **Environmental Factors –**

- Economic uncertainties of the business cycle.
- Political uncertainties of political systems.
- Technological uncertainties of technical innovations.
- Terrorism in threats to physical safety and security.

Potential Sources of Stress

- **Organizational Factors –**
- Task demands related to the job
- Role demands of functioning in an organization
- Interpersonal demands created by other employees
- Organizational structure (rules and regulations)
- Organizational leadership (managerial style)
- Organization’s life stage (growth, stability, and decline)

Potential Sources of Stress

- **Individual Factor –**

- Family and personal relationship.
- Economic problem for exceeding earning capacity.
- Personality problem arising for basic disposition.

Consequences of Stress

- **Physiological Symptoms-**
  - Immediate effects
  - Illness
  - Chronic health conditions
- **Psychological Symptoms-**
  - Anxiety
  - Lower emotional well-being
  - Lower job satisfaction

Consequences of Stress

- **Behavioral Symptoms-**
- Lower job performance
- Higher absenteeism
- Higher turnover

END OF CHAPTER

HAVE A GOOD DAY……..

Chapter-Five
Perception and Individual Decision Making

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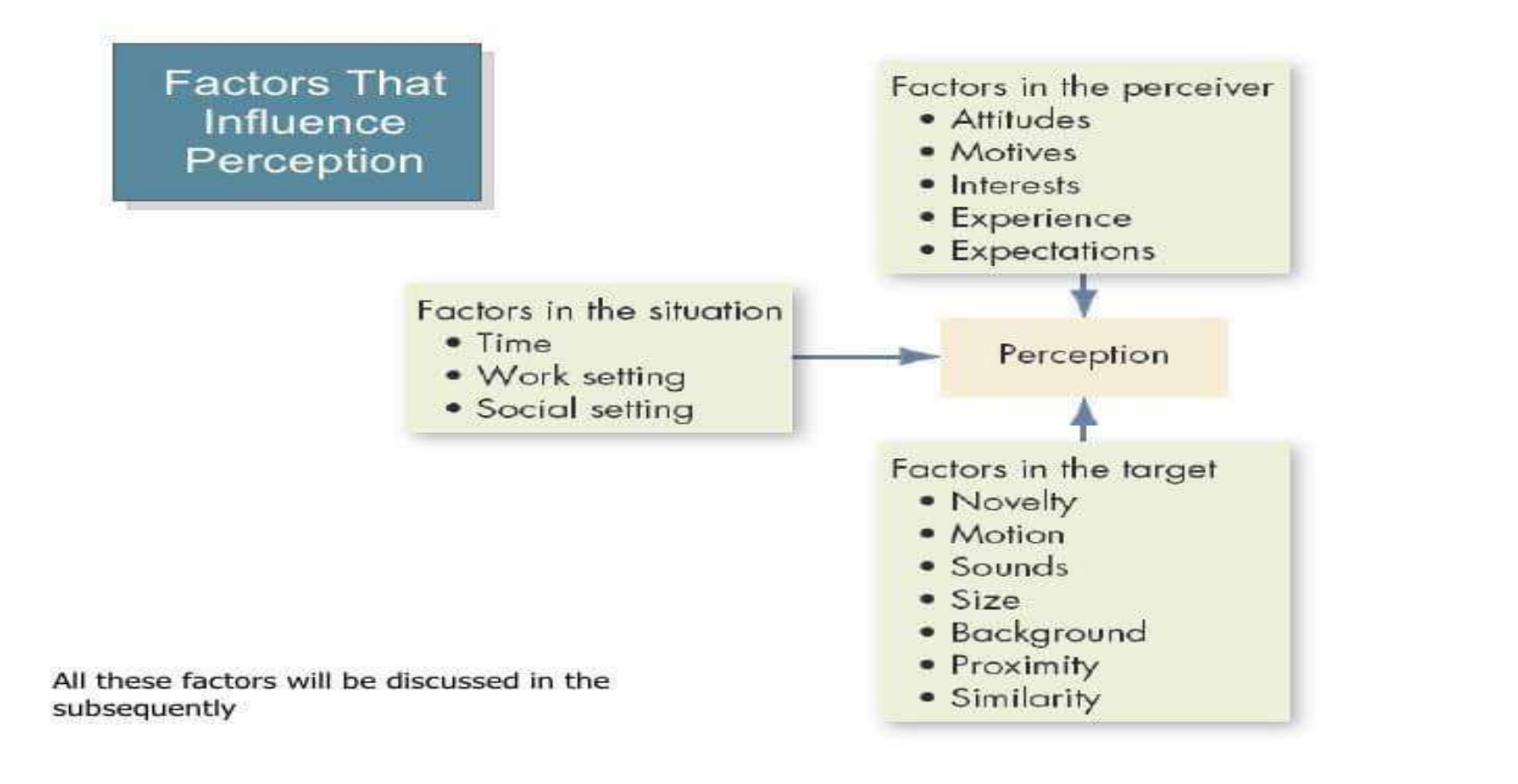
Perception

- Perception is a process by which we organize and interpret sensory impressions to give meaning to our environment. What we perceive can be substantially different from objective reality.
- For example, all employees in a firm may view it as a great place to work – favorable working conditions, interesting job assignments, good pay, excellent benefits, understanding and responsible management – but, as most of us know, it’s very unusual to find universal agreement across people.
- Perception is important in organizational behavior because people’s behavior is based on their perception of what reality is, not on reality itself.

Factors That Influence Perception

- Many factors shape and sometimes distort perception. These factors can reside in the perceiver, the object or target being perceived, or the situation in which the perception is made.



Factors That Influence Perception

- **Factors in the Perceiver:** The factors in the perceiver that affect perception are:

- **Attitudes-** Attitudes have a powerful influence on what we pay attention to, what we remember, and how we interpret information. Different attitudes lead to different interpretations.
- **Motives-** Motives stimulate individuals. It is unsatisfied need. They exert strong influence on perception. For example; hungry people tend to see images of food.
- **Emotions-** An individual's emotional state strongly influences perception. Anger and frustration distort perception.

Factors That Influence Perception

- **Interests-** Individual interests differ considerably. Interest influences the focus of attention. Differences in individual interests result in differing perceptions.
- **Experiences-** Past experiences affect the focus of attention. Individuals tend to perceive those objects or events to which they can relate to.
- **Expectations-** People see what they expect to see.

Factors That Influence Perception

- **Factors in the Target:** The factors in the target that affect perception are:
- **Novelty-** Novelty targets are more likely to be noticed than the targets observed in the past.
- **Motion, sound, size-** They shape the way we see the target. Loud people are more likely to be noticed.
- **Background-** A target is not looked at in isolation. The relationship of target to its background influences perception.
- **Proximity-** Objects that are close to each other tend to be perceived together.
- **Similarity-** Similar things need to be grouped together. For example; black people are perceived as alike even in unrelated characteristics.

Factors That Influence Perception

- **Factors in the Situation**: The factors in the situation that affect perception are:
- **Time-** The time at which an object or event is seen affects perception. For example; a daily report arriving after two days may be ignored by the perceiver.
- **Work setting-** The changing context of the work setting influences perception. For example; stressful work situations distort perception.
- **Social setting-** The changing social setting influences perception. For example; a male student wearing earrings may not be noticed in a disco but highly noticeable in the classroom.

Common Shortcuts in Judging Others

Shortcuts for judging others often allow us to make accurate perception rapidly and provide valid data for making predictions. However, they can and do sometimes result in significant distortions. These are –

- Selective Perception
- Halo and Horns Effects
- Contrast Effects
- Stereotyping

Common Shortcuts in Judging Others

- **Selective Perception:** It is impossible for us to assimilate everything we see; we can take in only certain stimuli. Because we can not observe everything going on around us, we use selective perception. But we don’t choose randomly. We make selections based on our perceptions. Selective perception is the tendency to choose to interpret what one sees based on one’s interest, background, experience and attitudes. Seeing what we want to see, we sometimes draw unwarranted conclusions from an ambiguous situation.

Common Shortcuts in Judging Others

- **Halo and Horns Effects:** Halo effect is the tendency to draw a positive general impression about an individual based on a single characteristic. Such as intelligence, sociability, or appearance. Horns effect is the tendency to draw a negative general impression about an individual based on a single characteristic. These effects are easy to demonstrate.

Common Shortcuts in Judging Others

- **Contrast Effect:** Contrast effect is the evaluation of a person's characteristics that is affected by comparisons with other people recently encounter who rank higher or lower on the same characteristics. We don't evaluate a person in isolation. Our reaction is influenced by other people we have recently encountered. For example, research on 22 teams in a Chinese hospitality organization that was undergoing radical organizational change and new leader appointments suggests that transformational leadership is more effective in improving support for the changes among followers when the former leader was not transformational.

Common Shortcuts in Judging Others

- **Stereotyping:** Stereotyping means judging based on one's perception of the group to which that person belongs. We deal with our complex world's unmanageable number of stimuli by using stereotypes or shortcuts called heuristics to make decision quickly.

Decision

- Decision is a choice among two or more alternatives.
- Managers at all levels and in all areas of organization make decisions. That is they make choices.
- For instance, top-level managers make decisions about their organization's goals, where to locate manufacturing facilities, or what new markets to move into.
- Middle-lower level managers make decisions about production schedules, product quality problem, pay raises, and employee discipline.
- Our focus on this chapter is on how managers make decisions.

Decision-Making Conditions

When making decisions, managers may face three different conditions. These are-

- Certainty
- Risk
- Uncertainty

❖ **Decision-Making Under Certainty:** The ideal situation for making decision is one of certainty, a situation where a manager can make accurate decisions because the outcomes of every alternative is known. For example, entrepreneurs and business managers in Sweden can be certain they will receive prompt payment for goods and services when they decide to allow customers to make purchases through financial service apps.

Decision-Making Conditions

- **Decision-Making Under Risk:** A far more common situation is one of risk, conditions in which the decision maker is able to estimate the likelihood of certain outcomes. Under risk managers have historical data from past personal experiences or secondary information that lets them assign probabilities to different alternatives.
- **Decision-Making Under Uncertainty:** Uncertainty is a situation in which a decision maker has neither certainty nor reasonable probability estimates available. Under these conditions, the choice of alternatives is influenced by the limited amount of available information and by the psychological orientation of the decision maker.

Decision-Making Biases and Errors

When managers make decisions, they may use the “rules of thumb”, or heuristics, to simplify their decision making. Rules of thumb can be useful because they help make sense of complex, uncertain, and ambiguous information. Even though managers may use rules of thumb, that doesn’t mean those rules are reliable.

Decision-Making Biases and Errors

- **Overconfidence Bias:** When decision makers tend to think they know more than they do or hold unrealistically positive views of themselves and their performance, they are exhibiting the overconfidence bias.
- **Immediate Gratification Bias:** The immediate gratification bias describes decision makers who tend to want immediate rewards and to avoid immediate costs. For these individuals decision choices that provide quick payoffs are more appealing than those with payoffs in the future.
- **Anchoring Effect:** The anchoring effect describes how decision makers fixate on initial information as a starting point and then, once set, fail to adequately adjust for subsequent information. First impressions, ideas, prices, and estimates carry unwarranted weight relative to information received later.

Decision-Making Biases and Errors

- **Selective Perception Bias:** When decision makers selectively organize and interpret events based on their biased perceptions, they are using the selective perception bias. This influences the information they pay attention to, the problems they identify, and the alternatives they develop.
- **Confirmation Bias:** Decision makers who seek out information that reaffirms their past choices and discounts information that contradicts past judgements exhibit the confirmation bias.
- **Framing Bias:** The framing bias occurs when decision makers select and highlight certain aspects of a situation while excluding others. By drawing attention to specific aspects of a situation while excluding others. By drawing attention to specific aspects of a situation and highlighting them.

Decision-Making Biases and Errors

- **Availability Bias:** The availability bias happens when decision makers tend to remember events that most recent and vivid in their memory. It distorts their ability to recall events in an objective manner and results in distorted judgements and probability estimates.
- **Representation Bias:** When decision makers assess the likelihood of an events based on how closely it resembles other events or sets of events, that's the representation bias. Managers exhibiting this bias draw analogies and see identical situations where they don't exist.
- **Randomness Bias:** The randomness bias describes the actions of decision makers who try to create meaning out random events. They do this because most decision makers have difficulty dealing with chance even though random events happen to everyone, and there is nothing that can be done to predict them.

Decision-Making Biases and Errors

- **Sunk Costs Error:** The sunk cost error occurs when decision makers forget that current choices can't correct the past. They incorrectly fixate on past expenditures of time, money, or effort in assessing choices rather than on future consequences. Instead of ignoring sunk costs, they can't forget them.
- **Self-serving Bias:** Decision makers who are quick to take credit for their successes and to blame failure on outside factors are exhibiting the self-serving bias.
- **Hindsight Bias:** Finally, the hindsight bias is the tendency for decision makers to falsely believe that they would have accurately predicted the outcome of an event once that outcome is actually known.

END OF CHAPTER

HAVE A GOOD DAY

Chapter-Six
Personality and Values

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Definition of Personality

- An individual's personality is a unique combination of emotional, thought, and behavioral patterns that affect how a person react to situations and interacts with others. It's our natural way of doing things and relating to others. Personality is most often described in terms of measurable traits a person exhibits.
- Over the years, researchers have attempted to identify, those traits that best describe personality. The two most well-known approaches are the Myers-Briggs Type Indicators (MBTI) and the Big Five Model.

Personality Determinants

An early debate centered on whether an indibidual's personality is the result of heredity or environment. Personality appears to be a result of both; however, research tends to support the importance of heredity over environment.

- Heredity
- Environment

❖ **Heredity:** Heredity refers to factors determined at conception. Physical stature, facial features, gender, temperament, muscle composition and reflexes, energy level and biological rhythms are either completely and substantially influenced by parentage – by your biological parents, physiological, and inherent psychological makeup.

Personality Determinants

- This is not to suggest that personality never changes. People's scores on dependability tend to increase over time, as when young adults start families and establish careers.
- **Environment:** Personality is not solely determined by genetic characteristics. Heredity provides only the blueprint in terms of chromosomes and genes. However, the ability to operate on that gene is largely dependent on the presence of a suitable environment. For example, a person may have mathematical ability but this ability cannot be refined unless that person is provided with the opportunity to exercise his ability for math's.
- Social Factors
- Cultural Factors
- Economic Factors

Personality Determinants

- **Social Factors:** Human beings are social animals. We are born and brought up in society. Therefore, social conditions, social institutions – family, school, marriage, religion, peer groups and neighborhood as well as various other social groups will all affect the development of personality.
- **Cultural Factors:** Culture is a comprehensive phrase that encompasses all practices, traditions, people, styles, fads, and other aspects of life. We are all influenced by one or more cultures. As a result, a cultural impact on personality is unavoidable.
- **Economic Factors:** It was demonstrated that our attitude and perception, as well as our personality, are influenced by economic factors. You may have noticed that children from low-income families frequently have low self-confidence, feelings of inferiority, and shyness.

Myers-Briggs Type Indicators (MBTI)

- One popular approach to classifying personality traits is the personality-assessment instrument known as the MBTI. This 100-question assessment ask people how they usually act or feel in different situations. On the basis of their answers, individuals are classified as exhibiting a preference in four categories. These are-
- Extraversion or Introversion (E or I)
- Sensing or Intuition (S or N)
- Thinking or Feeling (T or F)
- Judging or Perceiving (J or P)

Myers-Briggs Type Indicators (MBTI)

- **Extraversion (E) Versus Introversion (I):** Individuals showing a preference for extraversion are outgoing, social, and assertive. They need a work environment that's varied and action oriented, that lets them be with others, and that gives them a variety of experiences. Individual showing a preference for introversion are quiet and shy. They focus on understanding and prefer a work environment that is quiet and concentrated, that lets them be alone, and that gives them a chance to explore in depth a limited set of experiences.

Myers-Briggs Type Indicators (MBTI)

- **Sensing (S) Versus Intuition (N):** Sensing types are practical and prefer routine and order. They dislike new problems unless there are standard ways to solve them, have a high need for closure, show patience with routine details, and tend to be good at precise work. On the other hand, intuition types rely on unconscious processes and look at the ‘big picture’. They are individuals who like solving problems, dislike doing the same thing over and over again, jump to conclusions, are impatient with routine details, and dislike taking time for precision.

Myers-Briggs Type Indicators (MBTI)

- **Thinking (T) Versus Feeling (F):** Thinking types use reason and logic to handle problems. They are unemotional and uninterested in people's feelings, like analysis and putting things into logical order, are able to reprimand people and fire them when necessary, may seem hard-hearted, and tend to relate well only to other thinking types. Feeling types rely on their personal values and emotions. They are aware of other people and their feelings, like harmony, need occasional praise, dislike telling people unpleasant thinks, tend to be sympathetic, and relate well to most people.

Myers-Briggs Type Indicators (MBTI)

- **Judging (J) Versus Perceiving (P):** Judging types want to control and prefer their world to be ordered and structured. They are good planners, decisive, purposeful, and exacting. They focus on completing a task , make decisions quickly, and want only the information necessary to get a task done. Perceiving types are flexible and spontaneous. They are curious, adaptable, and tolerant. They focus on starting a task, postpone decisions, and want to find out all about the task before starting it.

The BIG Five Model

In recent years, research has shown that five basic personality dimensions underlie all others and encompass most of the significant variation in human personality. The five personality traits in the **BIG Five Model** are-

- **Extraversion:** The extraversion dimension captures our relational approach toward the social world. Extraverts tend to be gregarious, assertive, and sociable. They experience more positive emotions than do introverts, and they more freely express their feelings.
- **Agreeableness:** The agreeableness dimensions refers to an individual's propensity to defer to others. Agreeable people are more cooperative, warm, and trusting. You might expect agreeable people to be happier than disagreeable people.

The BIG Five Model

- **Conscientiousness:** The degree to which someone is reliable, responsible, dependable, persistent, and achievement oriented. A highly conscientious person is responsible, organized, dependable, and persistent. Those who score low on this dimension are easily distracted, disorganized, and unreliable.
- **Emotional Stability:** The degree to which someone is calm, enthusiastic, and secure (positive) or tense, nervous, depressed, and insecure (negative). The emotional stability dimension taps a person's ability to withstand stress.
- **Openness to Experience:** The degree to which someone has a wide range of interests and is imaginative, fascinated with novelty, artistically sensitive, and intellectual. Open people are creative, curious, and artistically sensitive.

The BIG Five Model

- The BIG Five Model provides more than just a personality framework. Research has shown that important relationship exist between these personality dimensions and job performance. For example, extraversion predicted performance in managerial and sales positions – occupations in which high social interaction necessary. Another study that looked at whether the five factor-model could predict managerial performance found it could if 360-degree performance ratings (that is, performance ratings from supervisors, peers, and subordinates) were used.

Additional Personality Insights

Although the traits in the Big Five are highly relevant to understanding behavior, they aren't the only personality traits that can describe someone's personality. Five other personality traits are powerful predictors of behavior in organizations.

- **Locus of Control:** Some people believe they control their own fate. Others see themselves as pawns, believing that what happens to them in their lives is due to luck or chance. The locus of control in the first case is internal; these people believe they control their own destiny. The locus of control in the second case is external; these people believe their lives are controlled by outside forces.

Additional Personality Insights

- **Machiavellianism:** The second characteristics is called Machiavellianism (Mach), named after Niccolo Machiavelli, who wrote in the sixteenth century on how to gain and manipulate power. An individual high in Machiavellianism is pragmatic, maintains emotional distance, and believes that ends can justify means. In jobs that require bargaining skills or that have substantial rewards for excelling, high Machs are productive.
- **Self-Esteem:** People differ in the degree to which they like or dislike themselves, a trait called self-esteem. Research on self-esteem (SE) offers some interesting behavioral insights. For example, self-esteem is directly related to expectations for success. Those high in SE believe they possess the ability they need to succeed at work. Individuals with high SEs will take more risks in job selection and are more likely to choose unconventional jobs than people with low SE.

Additional Personality Insights

- **Self-Monitoring :** Self-monitoring is a personality trait that measures the ability to adjust behavior to external situational factors. Individuals high in self-monitoring show considerable adaptability in adjusting their behavior. They are highly sensitive to external cues and can behave differently in different situations. High self-monitors are capable of presenting striking contradictions between their public persona and their private selves. Low self-monitors can't adjust their behavior.
- **Risk-Taking:** People differ in their willingness to take chances. Differences in the propensity to assume or to avoid risk have been shown to affect how long it takes managers to make a decision and how much information they require before making a choice. For instance, in one study where managers worked on simulated exercises that require them to make hiring decisions, high risk-taking managers took less time to make decisions and used less information in making their choices than low risk-taking managers.

Values

- Values represent basic convictions that a specific mode of conduct or end state of existence is personally or socially preferable to an opposite or converse mode of conduct or end-state of existence. Values contain a judgmental element because they carry an individual's ideas about what is right, good, or desirable. They have both content and intensity attributes.
- Values tend to be relatively stable and enduring. Many of the values we hold are established in our early years – by parents, teachers, friends and others. If we question values, they may change, but more often they are reinforced. There is also evidence linking personality to values, implying our values may be partly determined by genetically transmitted traits.

Cultural Values (Hofstede's Framework)

- Unlike personality, which is largely genetically determined, values are learned. They are passed down through generations and vary by cultures. One of the most widely referenced approaches for analyzing variations among cultures was done in the late 1970s by Geert Hofstede. Hofstede surveyed more than 116,000 IBM employees in 40 countries about their work- related values and found that managers and employees varied on five value dimensions of national culture:

- Power distance
- Individualism versus collectivism
- Masculinity versus femininity
- Uncertainty avoidance
- Long-term versus short-term orientation

Cultural Values (Hofstede's Framework)

- **Power Distance:** Power distance describes the degree to which people in a country accept that power in institutions and organizations is distributed unequally. A high rating on power distance means large inequalities of power and wealth exist and are tolerated in the culture, as in a class or caste system that discourages upward mobility.
- **Individualism Versus Collectivism:** Individualism is the degree to which people prefer to act as individuals rather than as members of groups and believe in an individual's rights above all else. Collectivism emphasizes a tight social framework in which people expect others in groups of which they are a part to look after them and protect them.

Cultural Values (Hofstede's Framework)

- **Masculinity Versus Femininity:** Hofstede's construct of masculinity is the degree to which the cultures favors traditional masculine roles such as achievement, power, and control, as opposed to viewing men and women as equals. A high masculinity rating indicates the culture has separate roles for men and women, with men dominating the society.
- **Uncertainty Avoidance:** The degree to which people in a country prefer structured over unstructured situations defines their uncertainty avoidance. In cultures scoring high on uncertainty avoidance, people have increased anxiety about uncertainty and ambiguity and use laws and controls to reduce uncertainty. People in cultures low on uncertainty avoidance are more accepting of ambiguity, are less rule oriented, take more risks, and accept change more rapidly.

Cultural Values (Hofstede's Framework)

- **Long-term Versus Short-term Orientations:** This typology measures a society's devotion to traditional values. People in a culture with long-term orientation look to the future and value thrift, persistence, and tradition. In a short-term orientation, people value the here and now, they also accept change more readily and don't see commitments as impediments to change.

END OF CHAPTER

HAVE A GOOD DAY